

INTERFACE

In computing, an interface is a shared boundary across which two or more separate components of a computer system exchange information. The exchange can be between software and computer hardware, peripheral devices, humans, and combinations of these. Some computer hardware devices, such as a touch-screen, can both send and receive data through the interface, while others such as a mouse or microphone may only provide an interface to send data to a given system.

HARDWARE INTERFACE

Hardware interfaces exist in many components, such as the various buses, storage devices other input/output (I/O) devices, etc. A hardware interface is described by the mechanical, electrical, and logical signals at the interface, and the protocol for sequencing them. Hardware interfaces can be parallel with several electrical connections carrying parts of the data simultaneously or serial where data are sent one bit at a time.

SOFTWARE INTERFACE

A software interface may refer to a wide range of different types of interface at different "levels": an operating system may interface with pieces of hardware. Applications or programs running on the operating system may need to interact with data streams, filters, and pipelines; and in object oriented programs, objects within an application may need to interact via methods.

USER INTERFACES

A user interface is a point of interaction between a computer and humans; it includes any number of modalities of interaction (such as graphics, sound, position, movement, etc.) where data is transferred between the user and the computer system.

①

Input/output interface (I/O interface)

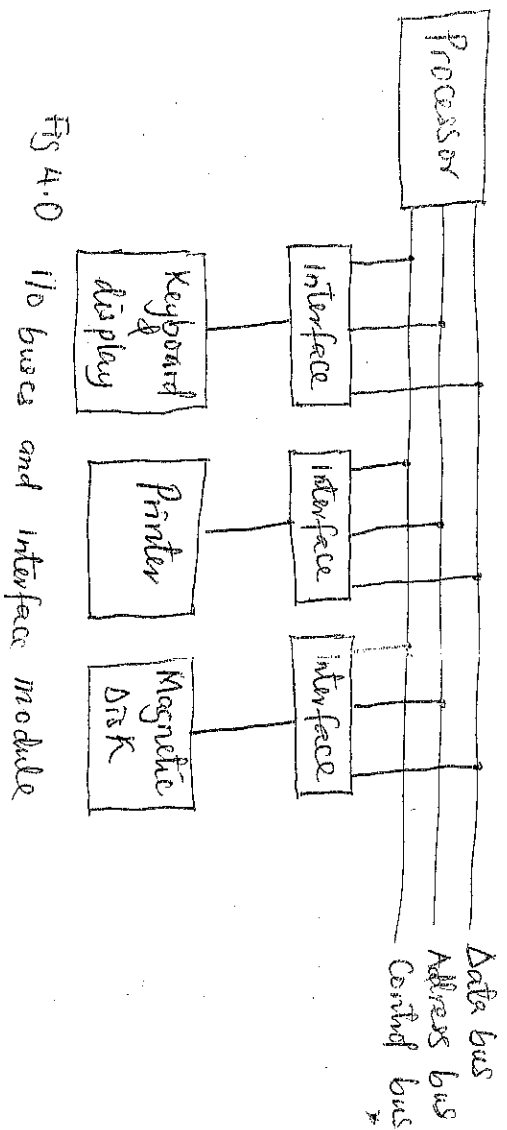
I/O interface is the process of transferring of information between internal and external storage.

Internal storage includes CPU and memory. External storage include all the peripheral devices which connect are connected outside the computer.

The communication between the CPU, memory and peripheral devices is handled by one interfacing circuit called I/O interface. In order to interface between the CPU and memory a special communication lines are required, which resolves the differences between the CPU and the peripherals.

I/O Buses & INTERFACE MODULE

This synchronizes the data flow and supervised the transfer of information between the CPU and peripherals.



Data bus — hold the data
Address bus — hold the address
Control bus — pass the control signal

TYPES OF COMMANDS IN I/O BUS AND INTERFACE MODULE

1. Control Command: Issued Command to activate the peripheral and to inform it on what state.
2. Status Command: Test various status conditions in the peripheral circuit to know whether it is ready or not.
3. Data output Command: Transferring data from bus into one of its registers
4. Data input command: Transferring data from registers to one of buses.

EXAMPLE OF I/O INTERFACE CIRCUIT

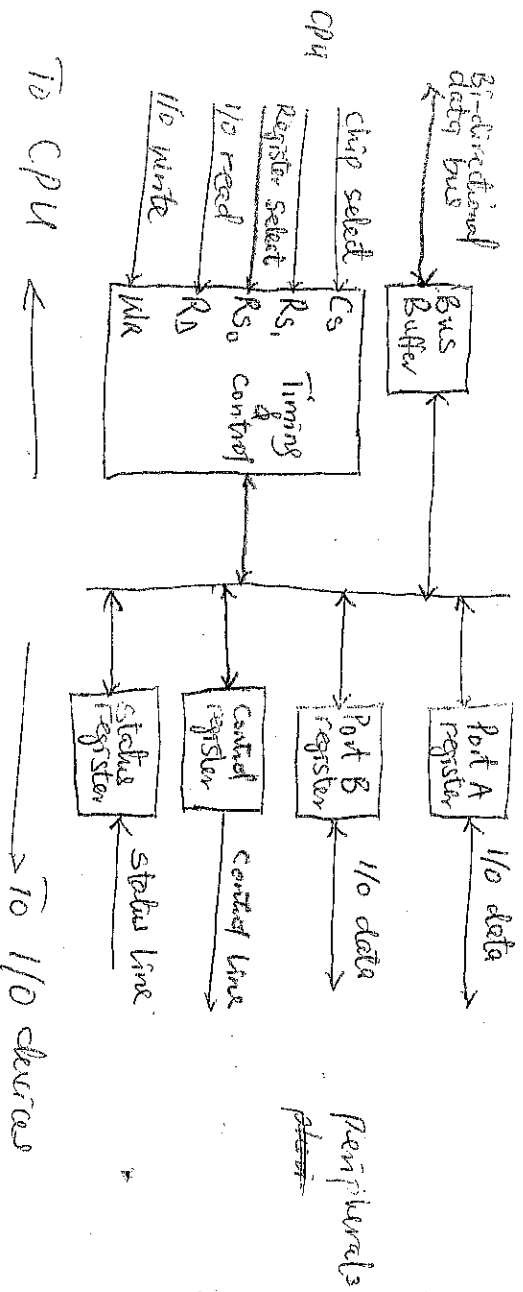


FIG. 4-1: I/O interface circuit.

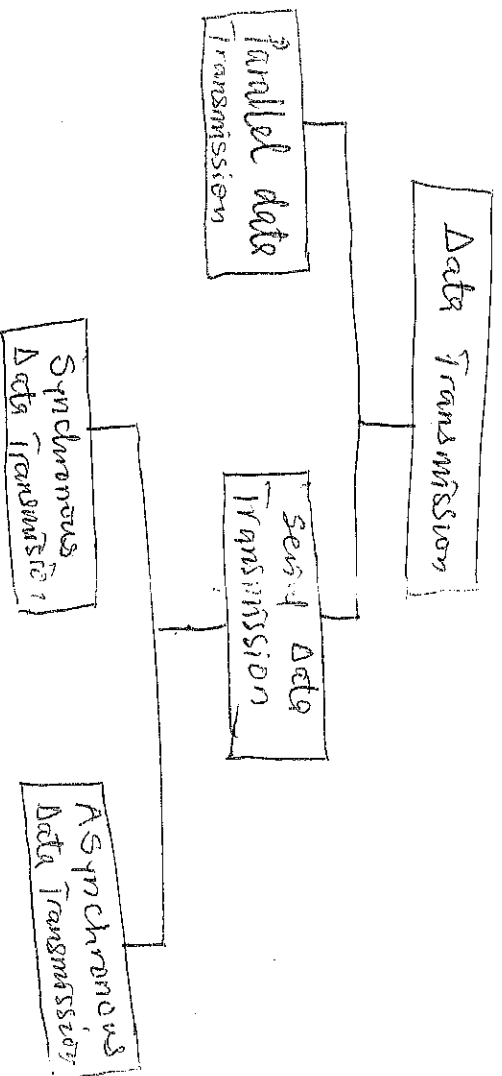
Cs	RS ₁	RS ₀	
0	X	X	None? Data bus in high-impedance state
1	0	0	Port A register
1	0	1	Port B register
1	1	0	Control register
1	1	1	Status register

DATA TRANSFER

Data transfer instructions transfer data between memory and processor registers, processor registers and I/O devices, and from one processor register to another.

There are two types of data transfer: Parallel data transfer and Serial data transfer and serial data transfer is further divided into two, i.e. Synchronous and Asynchronous serial data transfer.

These can be illustrated in the chart below:



(1) PARALLEL DATA TRANSFER

Parallel data transmission is a transmission structure that sends multiple data bits at a similar time over a separate media.

In general, Parallel transmission can be used with wired channel that uses multiple separate wires.

For example, if you want to transmit 1 byte of data using Parallel transmission, you need eight wires to do that as data are transmitted in bits.

Here, eight bits are sent together at a time which requires eight (8) lines or wires.

Example of parallel data transfer is the data transfer between computer and printer.

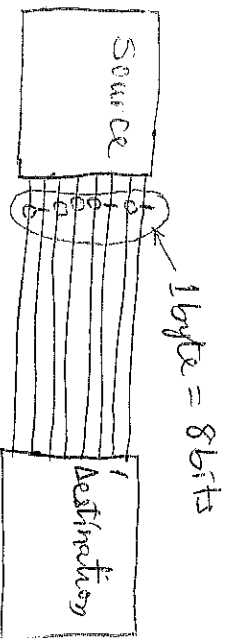


FIG 4.2: Parallel data transmission

Advantages of Parallel data transfer

1. Data transmission rate is high
2. Huge amount of data is transmitted over connection lines

Disadvantages

1. It is usually limited to shorter distance
2. As the number of bits are increasing the cost and the complexity of the system also increases.

SERIAL DATA TRANSFER

Here all bits of the byte are transmitted one after the other on the same wire. With the importance of speed, it may choose parallel transmission. However, most communication systems would use serial mode. Example of serial transmission is the transmission between computer and computer.

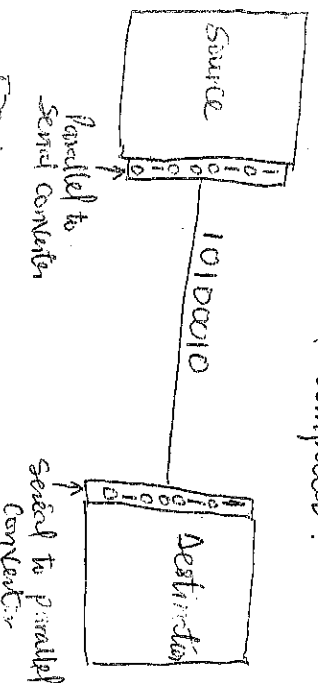


FIG. 4.3 Serial data transmission.

Types of Serial data transfer

- (1) Synchronous data transfer: Synchronous data transmission means at a time, the bytes are transmitted as a block in a continuous stream of bits.

- No ~~start~~ start and stop bit are used
- it does not care whether the data is received by the receiver or not.

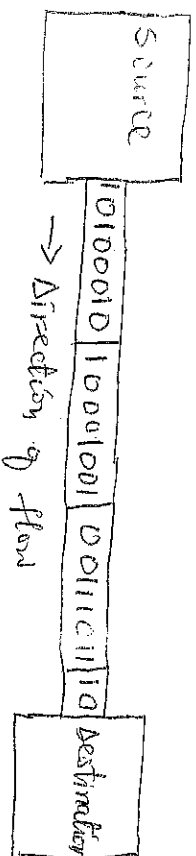


FIG 4.4: Synchronous data transmission.

2. Asynchronous Data Transfer

Asynchronous data transfer means "at a regular interval" here the transmitter transmits data bytes at any instant of time and only 1 byte is sent at a time. There is ideal time between two data bytes.

transmitter and receiver operate at different clock frequencies, to help the receiver start and stop bits are used along with data in middle.

By seeing the stop bit it assume that 1 byte of data is received. Timing of signal is not important.

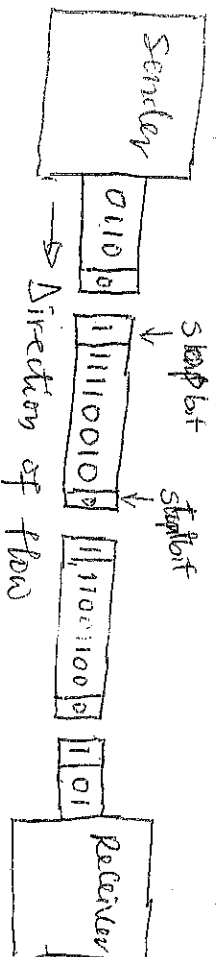


FIG 4.5: Asynchronous data transmission

0 ⇒ start bit
1 ⇒ stop bit

Advantages of Asynchronous data transmission

ADVANTAGES OF SERIAL DATA TRANSFER

1. Serial networks can be continued over long distances at much less cost because fewer physical wires are required, and intermediate electronic elements are less cheap.
2. Using only one physical wire defines that there are fewer timing issues caused by one wire being slightly higher than another.

DISADVANTAGE OF SERIAL DATA TRANSFER

1. Data transfer rate is very slow as compare to parallel transmission
2. Use of conversion devices at source and destination end may lead to increase in overall transmission cost.

INTERRUPT

An interrupt in computer architecture is a signal that requests the processor to suspend its current execution and service the ~~request~~ occurred interrupt.

1. Service the interrupt the processor executes the corresponding interrupt service routine (ISR). After the execution of the interrupt service routine, the processor resumes the execution of the suspended program.

INTERRUPT TECHNIQUES USED IN I/O INTERFACE

1. Programmed I/O interface
2. Interrupt driven I/O
3. DMA (Direct Memory Access)

These techniques are used to transfer data between I/O and the CPU.

1. Programmed I/O

This technique is the simplest to exchange data between external devices and the processors. In this technique, the processor or central processing unit runs or executes a program giving direct control of I/O operations. Processor issues a command to the I/O module and waits for the operation to complete. Also, the processor keeps checking the I/O module status until it finds the completion of the operation. The processor's time is wasted, in case the processor is faster than the I/O module. Its module is considered to be a slow module. The cycle of the operation is as shown in the flow chart below.

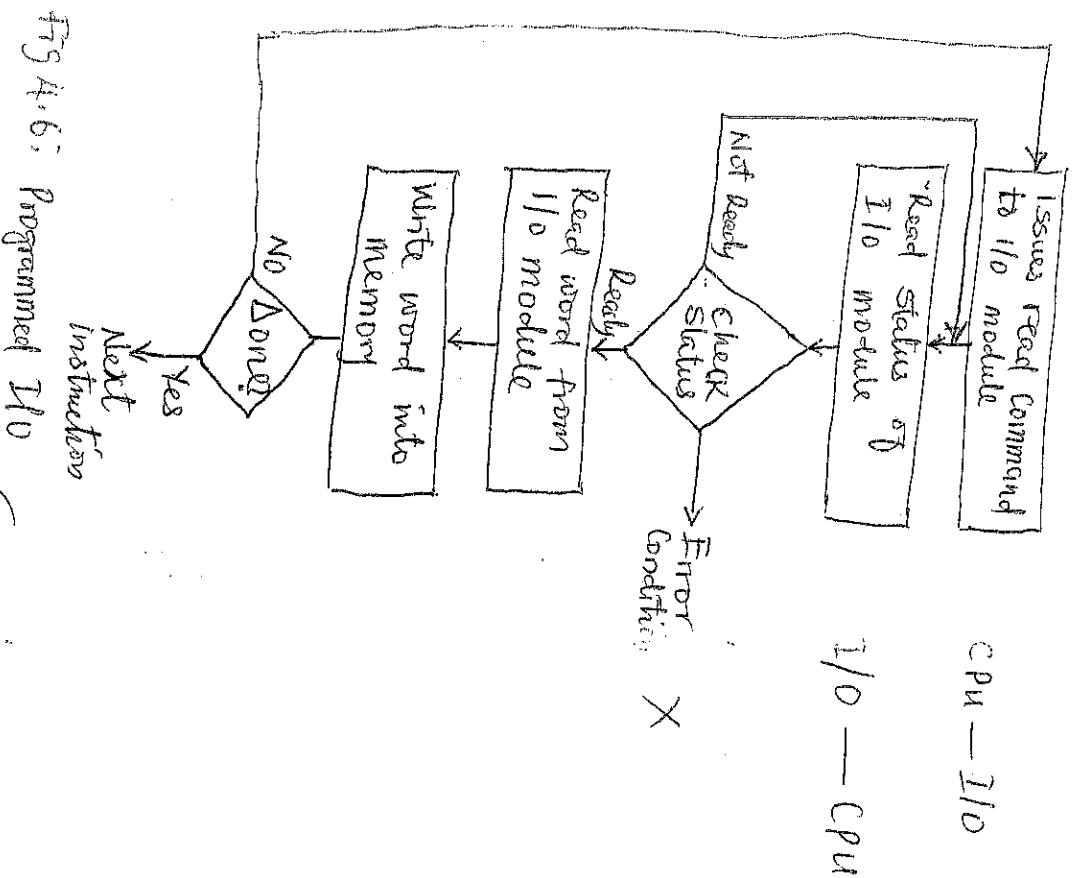


Fig 4.6: Programmed I/O

2. Interrupt Driven I/O

It is similar to programmed I/O. Here the processor issues an I/O command to a module and then go on to do some other useful work. The I/O module will then interrupt the processor to request service, when it is ready to exchange data with the processor. The processor then executes the data transfer as before and then resumes its former processing. Interrupt-driven I/O still consumes a lot of time because every data has to pass with processor.

BASIC OPERATIONS OF INTERRUPT DRIVEN I/O

1. CPU issues Read Command
2. I/O module gets data from peripheral unit & CPU does other work.
3. I/O module interrupts CPU.
4. CPU request data
5. I/O module transfers data.

Interrupt driven I/O processing cycle

1. A device driver initiates an I/O request on behalf of a process
2. The device driver signals the I/O controller for the proper device, which initiates the requested I/O
3. The device signals the I/O controller that I/O input, the output is complete or that an error has been generated.
4. The CPU receives the interrupt signal on the interrupt-request line and transfer control over the interrupt handler routine.
5. The interrupt handler determines the cause of the interrupt, performs the necessary processing and executes a "return from interrupt" instruction.

6. The CPU returns to the execution state prior to the interrupt being signaled.

7. The CPU continues processing with the cycle begins again.

The cycle for interrupt driven I/O is as shown below.

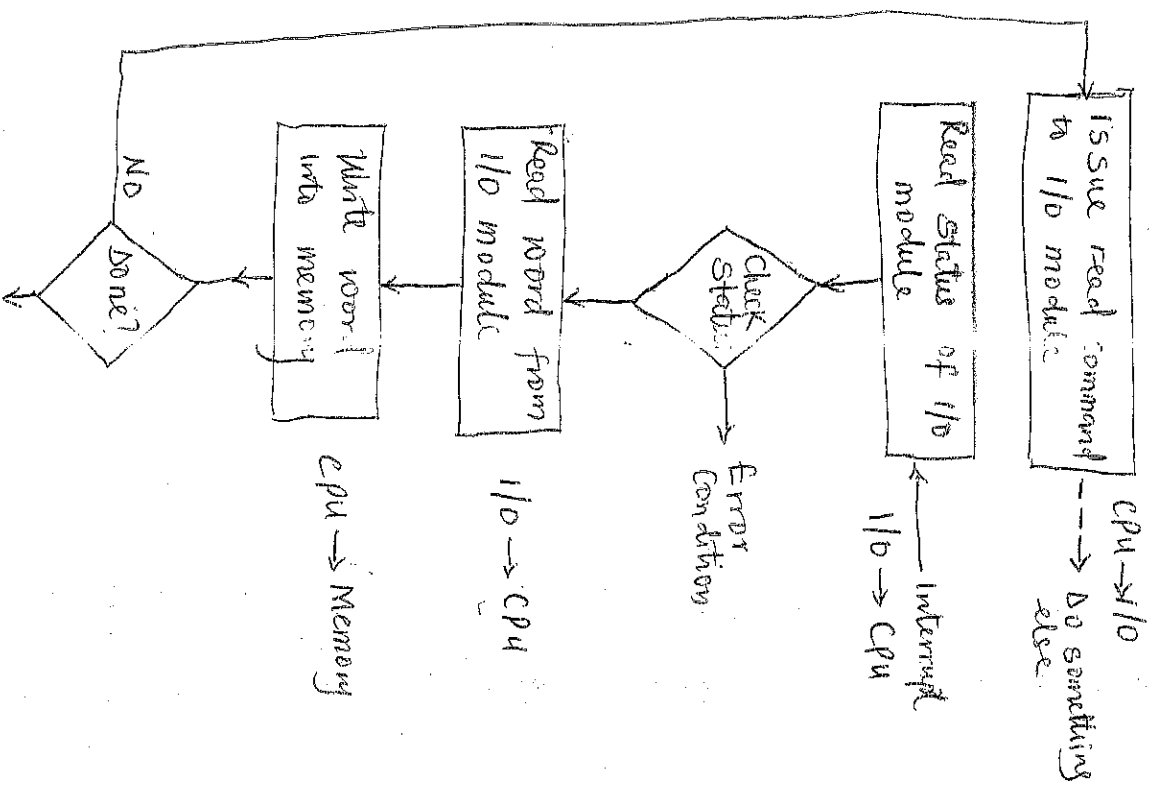


FIG 4-7: Interrupt driven I/O

DIRECT MEMORY ACCESS (DMA)

Direct Memory Access (DMA) is a mode of data transfer between the memory and I/O devices. This happens without the involvement of the processor.

DIRECT MEMORY ACCESS CONTROLLER AND ITS WORKING

DMA Controller is a hardware unit that allows I/O devices to access memory directly without the participation of the processor. Below is the diagram of a DMA controller.

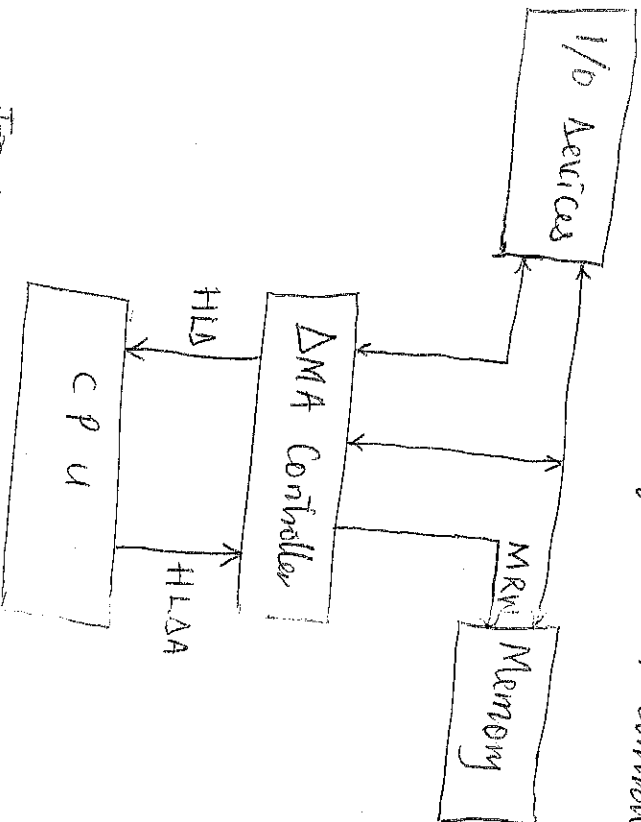


FIG. 4.8: DMA Controller I/O

HOW DOES DMA CONTROLLER I/O WORK?

1. Whenever an I/O device wants to transfer the data to or from memory, it sends the DMA request (DRQ) to DMA controller. a few clock cycles by sending it the hold request (HLA).
2. CPU receives the hold request (HLD) from DMA controller and relinquishes the bus and sends the hold acknowledgment (HLDA) to DMA controller.

3. After receiving the HLDA, DMA controller acknowledges I/O device (DACK) that the data transfer can be performed and DMA controller takes the charge of the system bus and transfers the data to or from memory.
4. When the data transfer is accomplished, the DMA raise an interrupt to let know the processor that the task of data transfer is finished and the processor can take control over the bus again and start processing where it has left.

SINGLE CHIP AND MULTI-CHIP MICROPROCESSOR

⇒ SINGLE CHIP MICROPROCESSOR

Putting a CPU, ROM, RAM and data input/output circuitry into a single IC will make a single-chip microprocessor. Single chip microprocessor come compact and cheap, but do not allow users to choose built-in functions at their option. Single chip microprocessors are also called microcomputer units (MCUs), because they are made up of single IC.

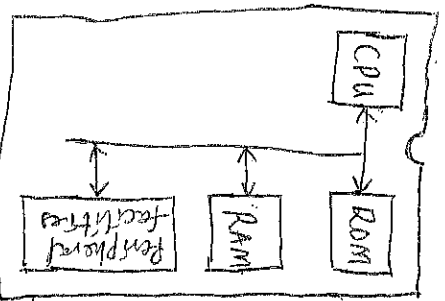


Fig 4.1: Single chip microprocessor

⇒ MULTI CHIP MICROPROCESSOR

On the other hand, a computer fabricated from a mix of a CPU, memory and data input/output devices is called a multi chip microprocessor. ~~Microprocessor~~ Multi chip microprocessors offers users greater freedom in their component choice. Multi-chip microprocessor will prove more advantageous in larger systems involving complexities.

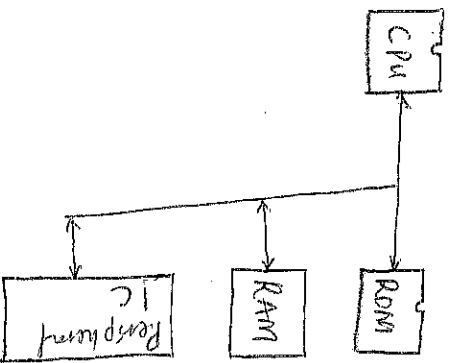


fig 4-10: Multi chip microprocessor

EVOLUTION OF IC FROM SSI, MSI, LSI TO VLSI

1. Small Scale Integration (SSI):
Firstly, between 1961-1965 in SSI transistors were fabricated about 10 to 100 on a single chip. This technology is used for making logic gates, flip-flops.
2. Medium Scale Integration (MSI):
In 1966-1970 in MSI transistors were fabricated about 100 to 1000 on a single chip. This technology is used for making counters, multiplexers, decoders.
3. Large Scale Integration (LSI):
In 1971-1979 in LSI transistors were fabricated about 1000 to 20,000 on a single chip. This technology is used for making microprocessors, RAM, ROM.
4. Very Large Scale Integration (VLSI):
In 1980-1984 in VLSI transistors were fabricated about 20,000 to 50,000 on a single chip. This technology is used for making DSP (Digital Signal Processing), ICs, RISC microprocessor, 16-bit and 32-bit microprocessors.

~~From 1985~~ +

5. ULTRA LARGE SCALE INTEGRATION

From 1985 - present technology VLSI, in which transistors are fabricated about greater than 50,000 to billions on a single chip. This technology is used for making 64-bit microprocessors.

The part of the number, which lies to the left of the **binary point** is known as integer part. Similarly, the part of the number, which lies to the right of the binary point is known as fractional part.

In this number system, the successive positions to the left of the binary point having weights of 2^0 , 2^1 , 2^2 , 2^3 and so on. Similarly, the successive positions to the right of the binary point having weights of 2^{-1} , 2^{-2} , 2^{-3} and so on. That means, each position has specific weight, which is **power of base 2**.

Example

Consider the **binary number 1101.011**. Integer part of this number is 1101 and fractional part of this number is 0.011. The digits 1, 0, 1 and 1 of integer part have weights of 2^0 , 2^1 , 2^2 , 2^3 respectively. Similarly, the digits 0, 1 and 1 of fractional part have weights of 2^{-1} , 2^{-2} , 2^{-3} respectively.

Mathematically, we can write it as

$$1101.011 = (1 \times 2^3) + (1 \times 2^2) + (0 \times 2^1) + (1 \times 2^0) + (0 \times 2^{-1}) + (1 \times 2^{-2}) + (1 \times 2^{-3})$$

After simplifying the right hand side terms, we will get a decimal number, which is an equivalent of binary number on left hand side.

Octal Number System

The **base** or radix of octal number system is **8**. So, the numbers ranging from 0 to 7 are used in this number system. The part of the number that lies to the left of the **octal point** is known as integer part. Similarly, the part of the number that lies to the right of the octal point is known as fractional part.

In this number system, the successive positions to the left of the octal point having weights of 8^0 , 8^1 , 8^2 , 8^3 and so on. Similarly, the successive positions to the right of the octal point having weights of 8^{-1} , 8^{-2} , 8^{-3} and so on. That means, each position has specific weight, which is **power of base 8**.

Example

Consider the **octal number 1457.236**. Integer part of this number is 1457 and fractional part of this number is 0.236. The digits 7, 5, 4 and 1 have weights of 8^0 , 8^1 , 8^2 and 8^3 respectively. Similarly, the digits 2, 3 and 6 have weights of 8^{-1} , 8^{-2} , 8^{-3} respectively.

Mathematically, we can write it as

$$1457.236 = (1 \times 8^3) + (4 \times 8^2) + (5 \times 8^1) + (7 \times 8^0) + (2 \times 8^{-1}) + (3 \times 8^{-2}) + (6 \times 8^{-3})$$

2

After simplifying the right hand side terms, we will get a decimal number, which is an equivalent of octal number on left hand side.

Hexadecimal Number System

The **base** or radix of Hexa-decimal number system is **16**. So, the numbers ranging from 0 to 9 and the letters from A to F are used in this number system. The decimal equivalent of Hexa-decimal digits from A to F are 10 to 15.

The part of the number, which lies to the left of the **hexadecimal point** is known as integer part. Similarly, the part of the number, which lies to the right of the Hexa-decimal point is known as fractional part.

In this number system, the successive positions to the left of the Hexadecimal point having weights of 16^0 , 16^1 , 16^2 , 16^3 and so on. Similarly, the successive positions to the right of the Hexa-decimal point having weights of 16^{-1} , 16^{-2} , 16^{-3} and so on. That means, each position has specific weight, which is **power of base 16**.

Example

Consider the **Hexa-decimal number 1A05.2C4**. Integer part of this number is 1A05 and fractional part of this number is 0.2C4. The digits 5, 0, A and 1 have weights of 16^0 , 16^1 , 16^2 and 16^3 respectively. Similarly, the digits 2, C and 4 have weights of 16^{-1} , 16^{-2} and 16^{-3} respectively.

Mathematically, we can write it as

$$1A05.2C4 = (1 \times 16^3) + (10 \times 16^2) + (0 \times 16^1) + (5 \times 16^0) + (2 \times 16^{-1}) + (12 \times 16^{-2}) + (4 \times 16^{-3})$$

After simplifying the right hand side terms, we will get a decimal number, which is an equivalent of Hexa-decimal number on left hand side.

Base Conversions

In previous chapter, we have seen the four prominent number systems. In this chapter, let us convert the numbers from one number system to the other in order to find the equivalent value.

Decimal Number to other Bases Conversion

If the decimal number contains both integer part and fractional part, then convert both the parts of decimal number into other base individually. Follow these steps for converting the decimal number into its equivalent number of any base 'r'.

- Do **division** of integer part of decimal number and **successive quotients** with base 'r' and note down the remainders till the quotient is zero. Consider the remainders in reverse order to get the integer part

of equivalent number of base 'r'. That means, first and last remainders denote the least significant digit and most significant digit respectively.

- Do **multiplication** of fractional part of decimal number and **successive fractions** with base 'r' and note down the carry till the result is zero or the desired number of equivalent digits is obtained. Consider the normal sequence of carry in order to get the fractional part of equivalent number of base 'r'.

Decimal to Binary Conversion

The following two types of operations take place, while converting decimal number into its equivalent binary number.

- Division of integer part and successive quotients with base 2.
- Multiplication of fractional part and successive fractions with base 2.

Example

Consider the **decimal number 58.25**. Here, the integer part is 58 and fractional part is 0.25.

Step 1 – Division of 58 and successive quotients with base 2.

Operation	Quotient	Remainder
58/2	29	0 LSB
29/2	14	1
14/2	7	0
7/2	3	1
3/2	1	1
1/2	0	1 MSB

$$\Rightarrow 58_{10} = 111010_2$$

Therefore, the **integer part** of equivalent binary number is **111010**.

Step 2 – Multiplication of 0.25 and successive fractions with base 2.

Operation	Result	Carry
0.25 x 2	0.5	0
0.5 x 2	1.0	1
-	0.0	-

$$\Rightarrow .25_{10} = .01_2$$

Therefore, the **fractional part** of equivalent binary number is **.01**

$$\Rightarrow 58.25_{10} = 111010.01_2$$

Therefore, the **binary equivalent** of decimal number 58.25 is 111010.01.

Decimal to Octal Conversion

The following two types of operations take place, while converting decimal number into its equivalent octal number.

- Division of integer part and successive quotients with base 8.
- Multiplication of fractional part and successive fractions with base 8.

Example

Consider the **decimal number 58.25**. Here, the integer part is 58 and fractional part is 0.25.

Step 1 – Division of 58 and successive quotients with base 8.

Operation	Quotient	Remainder
58/8	7	2
7/8	0	7

$$\Rightarrow 58_{10} = 72_8$$

Therefore, the **integer part** of equivalent octal number is **72**.

Step 2 – Multiplication of 0.25 and successive fractions with base 8.

Operation	Result	Carry
0.25 x 8	2.00	2
-	0.00	-

$$\Rightarrow .25_{10} = .2_8$$

Therefore, the **fractional part** of equivalent octal number is **.2**

$$\Rightarrow 58.25_{10} = 72.2_8$$

Therefore, the **octal equivalent** of decimal number 58.25 is 72.2.

Decimal to Hexa-Decimal Conversion

The following two types of operations take place, while converting decimal number into its equivalent hexa-decimal number.

- Division of integer part and successive quotients with base 16.
- Multiplication of fractional part and successive fractions with base 16.

Example

Consider the **decimal number 58.25**. Here, the integer part is 58 and decimal part is 0.25.

Step 1 – Division of 58 and successive quotients with base 16.

Operation	Quotient	Remainder
58/16	3	10=A
3/16	0	3

$$\Rightarrow 58_{10} = 3A_{16}$$

Therefore, the **integer part** of equivalent Hexa-decimal number is 3A.

Step 2 – Multiplication of 0.25 and successive fractions with base 16.

Operation	Result	Carry
0.25×16	4.00	4
-	0.00	-

$$\Rightarrow .25_{10} = .4_{16}$$

Therefore, the **fractional part** of equivalent Hexa-decimal number is .4.

$$\Rightarrow 58.25_{10} = 3A.4_{16}$$

Therefore, the **Hexa-decimal equivalent** of decimal number 58.25 is 3A.4.

Binary Number to other Bases Conversion

The process of converting a number from binary to decimal is different to the process of converting a binary number to other bases. Now, let us discuss about the conversion of a binary number to decimal, octal and Hexadecimal number systems one by one.

Binary to Decimal Conversion

For converting a binary number into its equivalent decimal number, first multiply the bits of binary number with the respective positional weights and then add all those products.

Example

Consider the **binary number 1101.11**.

Mathematically, we can write it as

$$\begin{aligned} 1101.11_2 &= (1 \times 2^3) + (1 \times 2^2) + (0 \times 2^1) + (1 \times 2^0) + (1 \times 2^{-1}) + \\ &\quad (1 \times 2^{-2}) \end{aligned}$$

$$\Rightarrow 1101.11_2 = 8 + 4 + 0 + 1 + 0.5 + 0.25 = 13.75$$

$$\Rightarrow 1101.11_2 = 13.75_{10}$$

Therefore, the **decimal equivalent** of binary number 1101.11 is 13.75.

Binary to Octal Conversion

We know that the bases of binary and octal number systems are 2 and 8 respectively. Three bits of binary number is equivalent to one octal digit, since $2^3 = 8$.

Follow these two steps for converting a binary number into its equivalent octal number.

- Start from the binary point and make the groups of 3 bits on both sides of binary point. If one or two bits are less while making the group of 3 bits, then include required number of zeros on extreme sides.
- Write the octal digits corresponding to each group of 3 bits.

Example

Consider the **binary number 101110.01101**.

Step 1 – Make the groups of 3 bits on both sides of binary point.

101 110.011 01

Here, on right side of binary point, the last group is having only 2 bits. So, include one zero on extreme side in order to make it as group of 3 bits. $\Rightarrow 101\ 110.011\ 010$

Step 2 – Write the octal digits corresponding to each group of 3 bits.

$$\Rightarrow 101110.011010_2 = 56.32_8$$

Therefore, the **octal equivalent** of binary number 101110.01101 is 56.32.

Binary to Hexa-Decimal Conversion

We know that the bases of binary and Hexa-decimal number systems are 2 and 16 respectively. Four bits of binary number is equivalent to one Hexadecimal digit, since $2^4 = 16$.

Follow these two steps for converting a binary number into its equivalent Hexa-decimal number.

- Start from the binary point and make the groups of 4 bits on both sides of binary point. If some bits are less while making the group of 4 bits, then include required number of zeros on extreme sides.
- Write the Hexa-decimal digits corresponding to each group of 4 bits.

Example Consider the binary number 101110.01101

Step 1 – Make the groups of 4 bits on both sides of binary point.

10 1110.0110 1

Here, the first group is having only 2 bits. So, include two zeros on extreme side in order to make it as group of 4 bits. Similarly, include three zeros on extreme side in order to make the last group also as group of 4 bits. $\Rightarrow 0010\ 1110.0110\ 1000$

Step 2 – Write the Hexa-decimal digits corresponding to each group of 4 bits.

$$\Rightarrow 00101110.01101000_2 = 2E.68_{16}$$

Therefore, the **Hexa-decimal equivalent** of binary number 101110.01101 is 2E.68.

Octal Number to other Bases Conversion

The process of converting a number from octal to decimal is different to the process of converting an octal number to other bases. Now, let us discuss about the conversion of an octal number to decimal, binary and Hexadecimal number systems one by one.

Octal to Decimal Conversion

- For converting an octal number into its equivalent decimal number, first multiply the digits of octal number with the respective positional weights and then add all those products.

Example

Consider the octal number 145.23.

Mathematically, we can write it as

$$145.23_8 = (1 \times 8^2) + (4 \times 8^1) + (5 \times 8^0) + (2 \times 8^{-1}) + (3 \times 8^{-2})$$

$$\Rightarrow 145.23_8 = 64 + 32 + 5 + 0.25 + 0.05 = 101.3$$

$$\Rightarrow 145.23_8 = 101.3_{10}$$

Therefore, the decimal equivalent of octal number 145.23 is 101.3.

Octal to Binary Conversion

The process of converting an octal number to an equivalent binary number is just opposite to that of binary to octal conversion. By representing each octal digit with 3 bits, we will get the equivalent binary number.

Binary	Octal
000	0
001	1
010	2
011	3
100	4
101	5
110	6
111	7

Example

Consider the octal number 145.23.

Represent each octal digit with 3 bits.

$$145.23_8 = 001100101.010011_2$$

The value doesn't change by removing the zeros, which are on the extreme side.

$$\Rightarrow 145.23_8 = 1100101.010011_2$$

Therefore, the binary equivalent of octal number 145.23 is 1100101.010011.

OCTAL TO HEXA-DECIMAL CONVERSION

Follow these two steps for converting an octal number into its equivalent Hexa-decimal number.

- Convert octal number into its equivalent binary number.
- Convert the above binary number into its equivalent Hexa-decimal number.

Example Consider the octal number 145.23

In previous example, we got the binary equivalent of octal number 145.23 as 1100101.010011.

By following the procedure of binary to Hexa-decimal conversion, we will get

$$\begin{aligned} 1100101.010011_2 &= 65.4C_{16} \\ &\Rightarrow 145.23_8 = 65.4C_{16} \end{aligned}$$

Therefore, the Hexa-decimal equivalent of octal number 145.23 is 65.4C.

Hexa-Decimal Number to other Bases Conversion

The process of converting a number from Hexa-decimal to decimal is different to the process of converting Hexa-decimal number into other bases. Now, let us discuss about the conversion of Hexa-decimal number to decimal, binary and octal number systems one by one.

Hexa-Decimal to Decimal Conversion

For converting Hexa-decimal number into its equivalent decimal number, first multiply the digits of Hexa-decimal number with the respective positional weights and then add all those products.

Example Consider the Hexa-decimal number 1A5.2

Mathematically, we can write it as

$$\begin{aligned} 1A5.2_{16} &= (1 \times 16^2) + (10 \times 16^1) + (5 \times 16^0) + (2 \times 16^{-1}) \\ &\Rightarrow 1A5.2_{16} = 256 + 160 + 5 + 0.125 = 421.125 \\ &\Rightarrow 1A5.2_{16} = 421.125_{10} \end{aligned}$$

Therefore, the decimal equivalent of Hexa-decimal number 1A5.2 is 421.125.

Hexa-Decimal to Binary Conversion

The process of converting Hexa-decimal number into its equivalent binary number is just opposite to that of binary to Hexa-decimal conversion. By representing each Hexa-decimal digit with 4 bits, we will get the equivalent binary number.

Binary	Hexadecimal
0000	0
0001	1
0010	2
0011	3
0100	4

0101	5
0110	6
0111	7
1000	8
1001	9
1010	A
1011	B
1100	C
1101	D
1110	E
1111	F

Example Consider the **Hexa-decimal number 65.4C**

Represent each Hexa-decimal digit with 4 bits.

$$65.4C_{16} = 01100101.01001100_2$$

The value doesn't change by removing the zeros, which are at two extreme sides.

$$\Rightarrow 65.4C_{16} = 1100101.010011_2$$

Therefore, the **binary equivalent** of Hexa-decimal number 65.4C is 1100101.010011.

Hexa-Decimal to Octal Conversion

Follow these two steps for converting Hexa-decimal number into its equivalent octal number.

- Convert Hexa-decimal number into its equivalent binary number.
- Convert the above binary number into its equivalent octal number.

Example Consider the **Hexa-decimal number 65.4C**

In previous example, we got the binary equivalent of Hexa-decimal number 65.4C as 1100101.010011.

By following the procedure of binary to octal conversion, we will get

$$1100101.010011_2 = 145.23_8$$

$$\Rightarrow 65.4C_{16} = 145.23_8$$

Therefore, the **octal equivalent** of Hexa-decimal number 65.4C is 145.23.

Codes

In the coding, when numbers or letters are represented by a specific group of symbols, it is said to be that number or letter is being encoded. The group of symbols is called as **code**. The digital data is represented, stored and transmitted as group of bits. This group of bits is also called as **binary code**.

Binary codes can be classified into two types.

- Weighted codes
- Unweighted codes

If the code has positional weights, then it is said to be **weighted code**. Otherwise, it is an unweighted code. Weighted codes can be further classified as positively weighted codes and negatively weighted codes.

Binary Codes for Decimal digits

The following table shows the various binary codes for decimal digits 0 to 9.

Decimal Digit	8421 Code	2421 Code	84-2-1 Code	Excess 3 Code
0	0000	0000	0000	0011
1	0001	0001	0111	0100
2	0010	0010	0110	0101
3	0011	0011	0101	0110
4	0100	0100	0100	0111
5	0101	1011	1011	1000
6	0110	1100	1010	1001
7	0111	1101	1001	1010
8	1000	1110	1000	1011
9	1001	1111	1111	1100

We have 10 digits in decimal number system. To represent these 10 digits in binary, we require minimum of 4 bits. But, with 4 bits there will be 16 unique combinations of zeros and ones. Since, we have only 10 decimal digits, the other 6 combinations of zeros and ones are not required.

8 4 2 1 code

- The weights of this code are 8, 4, 2 and 1.
- This code has all positive weights. So, it is a **positively weighted code**.
- This code is also called as **natural BCD BinaryCodedDecimal code**.

Example

Let us find the BCD equivalent of the decimal number 786. This number has 3 decimal digits 7, 8 and 6. From the table, we can write the BCD 8421 codes of 7, 8 and 6 are 0111, 1000 and 0110 respectively.

$$\therefore 786_{10} = 011110000110_{\text{BCD}}$$

There are 12 bits in BCD representation, since each BCD code of decimal digit has 4 bits.

2 4 2 1 code

- The weights of this code are 2, 4, 2 and 1.
- This code has all positive weights. So, it is a **positively weighted code**.
- It is an **unnatural BCD** code. Sum of weights of unnatural BCD codes is equal to 9.
- It is a **self-complementing** code. Self-complementing codes provide the 9's complement of a decimal number, just by interchanging 1's and 0's in its equivalent 2421 representation.

Example

Let us find the 2421 equivalent of the decimal number 786. This number has 3 decimal digits 7, 8 and 6. From the table, we can write the 2421 codes of 7, 8 and 6 are 1101, 1110 and 1100 respectively.

Therefore, the 2421 equivalent of the decimal number 786 is **110111101100**.

8 4 -2 -1 code

- The weights of this code are 8, 4, -2 and -1.
- This code has negative weights along with positive weights. So, it is a **negatively weighted code**.
- It is an **unnatural BCD** code.
- It is a **self-complementing** code.

Example

Let us find the 8 4 -2 -1 equivalent of the decimal number 786. This number has 3 decimal digits 7, 8 and 6. From the table, we can write the 8 4 -2 -1 codes of 7, 8 and 6 are 1001, 1000 and 1010 respectively.

Therefore, the 8 4 -2 -1 equivalent of the decimal number 786 is **100110001010**.

Excess 3 code

- This code doesn't have any weights. So, it is an **un-weighted code**.
- We will get the Excess 3 code of a decimal number by adding three 0011 to the binary equivalent of that decimal number. Hence, it is called as Excess 3 code.
- It is a **self-complementing** code.

Example

Let us find the Excess 3 equivalent of the decimal number 786. This number has 3 decimal digits 7, 8 and 6. From the table, we can write the Excess 3 codes of 7, 8 and 6 are 1010, 1011 and 1001 respectively.

Therefore, the Excess 3 equivalent of the decimal number 786 is **101010111001**

Gray Code

The following table shows the 4-bit Gray codes corresponding to each 4-bit binary code.

Decimal Number	Binary Code	Gray Code
0	0000	0000
1	0001	0001
2	0010	0011
3	0011	0010
4	0100	0110
5	0101	0111
6	0110	0101
7	0111	0100
8	1000	1100
9	1001	1101
10	1010	1111
11	1011	1110
12	1100	1010
13	1101	1011
14	1110	1001
15	1111	1000

- This code doesn't have any weights. So, it is an **un-weighted code**.
- In the above table, the successive Gray codes are differed in one-bit position only. Hence, this code is called as **unit distance code**.

Binary code to Gray Code Conversion

Follow these steps for converting a binary code into its equivalent Gray code.

- Consider the given binary code and place a zero to the left of MSB.
- Compare the successive two bits starting from zero. If the 2 bits are same, then the output is zero. Otherwise, output is one.
- Repeat the above step till the LSB of Gray code is obtained.

Example

From the table, we know that the Gray code corresponding to binary code 1000 is 1100. Now, let us verify it by using the above procedure.

Given, binary code is 1000.

Step 1 – By placing zero to the left of MSB, the binary code will be 01000.

Step 2 – By comparing successive two bits of new binary code, we will get the gray code as **1100**.

Logic Gates

Digital electronic circuits operate with voltages of **two logic levels** namely Logic Low and Logic High. The range of voltages corresponding to Logic Low is represented with '0'. Similarly, the range of voltages corresponding to Logic High is represented with '1'.

The basic digital electronic circuit that has one or more inputs and single output is known as **Logic gate**. Hence, the Logic gates are the building blocks of any digital system. We can classify these Logic gates into the following three categories.

- Basic gates
- Universal gates
- Special gates

Now, let us discuss about the Logic gates come under each category one by one.

Basic Gates

In earlier chapters, we learnt that the Boolean functions can be represented either in sum of products form or in product of sums form based on the requirement. So, we can implement these Boolean functions by using basic gates. The basic gates are AND, OR & NOT gates.

AND gate

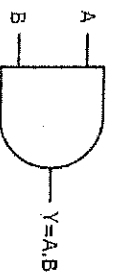
An AND gate is a digital circuit that has two or more inputs and produces an output, which is the **logical AND** of all those inputs. It is optional to represent the **Logical AND** with the symbol '∩'.

The following table shows the **truth table** of 2-input AND gate.

A	B	$Y = A.B$
0	0	0
0	1	0
1	0	0
1	1	1

Here A, B are the inputs and Y is the output of two input AND gate. If both inputs are '1', then only the output, Y is '1'. For remaining combinations of inputs, the output, Y is '0'.

The following figure shows the **symbol** of an AND gate, which is having two inputs A, B and one output, Y.



This AND gate produces an output Y, which is the **logical AND** of two inputs A, B. Similarly, if there are 'n' inputs, then the AND gate produces an output, which is the logical AND of all those inputs. That means, the output of AND gate will be '1', when all the inputs are '1'.

OR gate

An OR gate is a digital circuit that has two or more inputs and produces an output, which is the logical OR of all those inputs. This **logical OR** is represented with the symbol '+'.

The following table shows the **truth table** of 2-input OR gate.

A	B	$Y = A + B$
0	0	0
0	1	1
1	0	1
1	1	1

Here A, B are the inputs and Y is the output of two input OR gate. If both inputs are '0', then only the output, Y is '0'. For remaining combinations of inputs, the output, Y is '1'.

The following figure shows the **symbol** of an OR gate, which is having two inputs A, B and one output, Y.



This OR gate produces an output Y, which is the **logical OR** of two inputs

A, B. Similarly, if there are 'n' inputs, then the OR gate produces an output, which is the logical OR of all those inputs. That means, the output of an OR gate will be '1', when at least one of those inputs is '1'.

NOT gate

A NOT gate is a digital circuit that has single input and single output. The output of NOT gate is the **logical inversion** of input. Hence, the NOT gate is also called as inverter.

The following table shows the **truth table** of NOT gate.

A	$Y = A'$
0	1
1	0

Here A and Y are the input and output of NOT gate respectively. If the input, A is '0', then the output, Y is '1'. Similarly, if the input, A is '1', then the output, Y is '0'.

The following figure shows the **symbol** of NOT gate, which is having one input, A and one output, Y.



This NOT gate produces an output Y, which is the **complement** of input, A.

Universal gates

NAND & NOR gates are called as **universal gates**. Because we can implement any Boolean function, which is in sum of products form by using NAND gates alone. Similarly, we can implement any Boolean function, which is in product of sums form by using NOR gates alone.

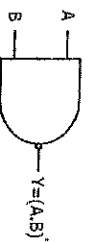
NAND gate

NAND gate is a digital circuit that has two or more inputs and produces an output, which is the **inversion of logical AND** of all those inputs. The following table shows the **truth table** of 2-input NAND gate.

A	B	$Y = (A.B)'$
0	0	1
0	1	1
1	0	1
1	1	0

Here A, B are the inputs and Y is the output of two input NAND gate. When both inputs are '1', the output, Y is '0'. If at least one of the input is zero, then the output, Y is '1'. This is just opposite to that of two input AND gate operation.

The following image shows the **symbol** of NAND gate, which is having two inputs A, B and one output, Y.



NAND gate operation is same as that of AND gate followed by an inverter. That's why the NAND gate symbol is represented like that.

NOR gate

NOR gate is a digital circuit that has two or more inputs and produces an output, which is the **inversion of logical OR** of all those inputs.

The following table shows the **truth table** of 2-input NOR gate

A	B	$Y = (A + B)'$
0	0	1
0	1	0
1	0	0
1	1	0

Here A, B are the inputs and Y is the output. If both inputs are '0', then the output, Y is '1'. If at least one of the input is '1', then the output, Y is '0'. This is just opposite to that of two input OR gate operation.

The following figure shows the **symbol** of NOR gate, which is having two inputs A, B and one output, Y.



NOR gate operation is same as that of OR gate followed by an inverter. That's why the NOR gate symbol is represented like that.

Special Gates

Ex-OR & Ex-NOR gates are called as special gates. Because, these two gates are special cases of OR & NOR gates.

Ex-OR gate

The full form of Ex-OR gate is **Exclusive-OR** gate. Its function is same as that of OR gate except for some cases, when the inputs having even number of ones.

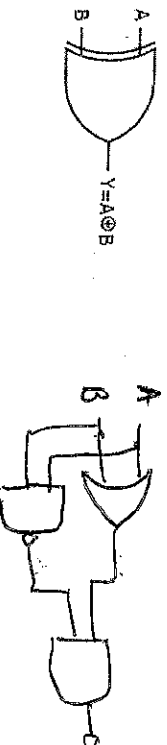
The following table shows the **truth table** of 2-input Ex-OR gate.

A	B	$Y = A \oplus B$
0	0	0
0	1	1
1	0	1
1	1	0

Here A, B are the inputs and Y is the output of two input Ex-OR gate. The truth table of Ex-OR gate is same as that of OR gate for first three rows. The only modification is in the fourth row. That means, the output Y is zero instead of one, when both the inputs are one, since the inputs having even number of ones.

Therefore, the output of Ex-OR gate is '1', when only one of the two inputs is '1'. And it is zero, when both inputs are same.

Below figure shows the **symbol** of Ex-OR gate, which is having two inputs A, B and one output, Y.



Ex-OR gate operation is similar to that of OR gate, except for few combination s of inputs. That's why the Ex-OR gate symbol is represented like that. The output of Ex-OR gate is '1', when odd number of ones present at the inputs. Hence, the output of Ex-OR gate is also called as an **odd function**.

Ex-NOR gate

$$A \odot B$$

The full form of Ex-NOR gate is **Exclusive-NOR** gate. Its function is same as that of NOR gate except for some cases, when the inputs having even number of ones.

The following table shows the **truth table** of 2-input Ex-NOR gate.

A	B	$Y = A \odot B$
0	0	1
0	1	0
1	0	0
1	1	1

Here A, B are the inputs and Y is the output. The truth table of Ex-NOR gate is same as that of NOR gate for first three rows. The only modification is in the fourth row. That means, the output is one instead of zero, when both the inputs are one.

Therefore, the output of Ex-NOR gate is '1', when both inputs are same. And it is zero, when both the inputs are different.

The following figure shows the symbol of Ex-NOR gate, which is having two inputs A, B and one output, Y.



Ex-NOR gate operation is similar to that of NOR gate, except for few combinations of inputs. That's why the Ex-NOR gate symbol is represented like that. The output of Ex-NOR gate is '1', when even number of ones present at the inputs. Hence, the output of Ex-NOR gate is also called as an **even function**.

From the above truth tables of Ex-OR & Ex-NOR logic gates, we can easily notice that the Ex-NOR operation is just the logical inversion of Ex-OR operation.

BOOLEAN ALGEBRA

Boolean Algebra is used to analyze and simplify the digital (logic) circuits. It uses only the binary numbers i.e. 0 and 1. It is also called as **Binary Algebra** or **logical Algebra**. Boolean algebra was invented by **George Boole** in 1854.

Rule in Boolean Algebra

Following are the important rules used in Boolean algebra.

- Variable used can have only two values. Binary 1 for HIGH and Binary 0 for LOW.
- Complement of a variable is represented by an overbar (-). Thus, complement of variable B is represented as $\overline{B}$. Thus if $B = 0$ then $\overline{B} = 1$ and $B = 1$ then $\overline{B} = 0$.
- ORing of the variables is represented by a plus (+) sign between them. For example, ORing of A, B, C is represented as $A + B + C$.
- Logical ANDing of the two or more variable is represented by writing a dot between them such as $A.B.C$. Sometime the dot may be omitted like ABC.

Boolean Laws

There are six types of Boolean Laws.

Commutative law

Any binary operation which satisfies the following expression is referred to as commutative operation.

$$(i) A \cdot B = B \cdot A \quad (ii) A + B = B + A$$

Commutative law states that changing the sequence of the variables does not have any effect on the output of a logic circuit.

Associative law

This law states that the order in which the logic operations are performed is irrelevant as their effect is the same.

$$(i) (A \cdot B) \cdot C = A \cdot (B \cdot C) \quad (ii) (A + B) + C = A + (B + C)$$

Distributive law

Distributive law states the following condition.

$$A \cdot (B + C) = A \cdot B + A \cdot C$$

AND law

These laws use the AND operation. Therefore, they are called as **AND** laws.

$$(i) A \cdot 0 = 0 \quad (ii) A \cdot 1 = A \\ (iii) A \cdot A = A \quad (iv) A \cdot \bar{A} = 0$$

OR law

These laws use the OR operation. Therefore, they are called as **OR** laws.

$$(i) A + 0 = A \quad (ii) A + 1 = 1 \\ (iii) A + A = A \quad (iv) A + \bar{A} = 1$$

INVERSION law

This law uses the NOT operation. The inversion law states that double inversion of a variable results in the original variable itself.

$$(i) (A \cdot B) \cdot C = A \cdot (B \cdot C) \quad (ii) (A + B) + C = A + (B + C) \quad (iii) \bar{\bar{A}} = A$$

Theorems of Boolean Algebra

The following two theorems are used in Boolean algebra.

- Duality theorem
- DeMorgan's theorem

Duality Theorem

- This theorem states that the **dual** of the Boolean function is obtained by interchanging the logical AND operator with logical OR operator and zeros with ones. For every Boolean function, there will be a corresponding Dual function.

Let us make the Boolean equations **relations** that we discussed in the section of Boolean postulates and basic laws into two groups. The following table shows these two groups.

Group1	Group2
$A + 0 = A$	$A.1 = A$
$A + 1 = 1$	$A.0 = 0$
$A + A = A$	$A.A = A$
$A + A' = 1$	$A.A' = 0$
$A + B = B + A$	$A.B = B.A$
$A + (B + C) = (A + B) + C$	$A.B.C = A.C.B$
$x.(y + z) = x.y + x.z$	$x + y.z = (x + y). (x + z)$

In each row, there are two Boolean equations and they are dual to each other. We can verify all these Boolean equations of Group1 and Group2 by using duality theorem.

DeMorgan's Theorem

It states that the complement of logical OR of at least two Boolean variables is equal to the logical AND of each complemented variable. This theorem is useful in finding the **complement of Boolean function**.

DeMorgan's theorem with 2 Boolean variables x and y can be represented as

$$(A + B)' = A'.B'$$

The dual of the above Boolean function is

$$(A.B)' = A' + B'$$

Therefore, the complement of logical AND of two Boolean variables is equal to the logical OR of each complemented variable. Similarly, we can apply DeMorgan's theorem for more than 2 Boolean variables also.

$$\begin{aligned} X.(Y+Z) &= X.Y + X.Z \\ X+(Y.Z) &= (X+Y)(X+Z) \end{aligned}$$

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$$\begin{aligned} X + YX + ZX + Z1 \\ X(X+Y) + Z(X+Y) \\ (X+Z)(X+Y) \end{aligned}$$

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Boolean Algebra Simplification

Having established the switching operation of the **AND**, **OR**, and **NOT** functions. We can now look at simplifying some basic Boolean Algebra expressions to obtain a final expression that has the minimum number of terms.

First let us start with something simple such as:

The Boolean Expression: $A.(A + B)$

Multiplying out the brackets gives us:

	$A.(A+B)$	
multiply:	$A.A + A.B$	Start
but:	$A.A = A$	Distributive Law
then:	$A + A.B$	Idempotent Law
thus:	$A.(1 + B)$	Reduction
	$1+1 = 1$	Annulment Law
equals to:	A	Absorption Law

Then we can see that the Boolean expression of $A.(A + B)$ can be reduced to just "A" which follows Boole's *Absorption Law*.

Example No2

This time we will use three Boolean terms, A, B, and C and use the same Boolean algebra simplification rules as before.

Boolean Expression: $(A + B)(A + C)$

Again, multiplying out the brackets gives us:

	$(A + B)(A + C)$	Start
multiply:	$A.A + A.C + A.B + B.C$	Distributive law
but:	$A.A = A$	Idempotent Law
then:	$A + A.C + A.B + B.C$	Reduction
however:	$A + A.C = A$	Absorption Law
thus:	$A + A.B + B.C$	Distributive Law
again:	$A + A.B = A$	Absorption Law
thus:	$A + B.C$	Result

Then the Boolean expression of $(A + B)(A + C)$ can be reduced to just "A + B.C" using the various Boolean algebra laws.

Boolean Algebra Simplification Example No3

This time we will again use the same three Boolean terms of A, B and C but introduce a NOT function to one of the terms.

Boolean Expression: $AB(B'C + AC)$

	$AB(B'C+AC)$	Start
multiply	$A.B.B'.C + A.B.A.C$	Distributive Law
again:	$A.A = A$	Idempotent Law
then:	$A.B.B'.C + A.B.C$	Reduction
but:	$B.B' = 0$	Complement Law
so:	$A.0.C + A.B.C$	Reduction
becomes:	$0 + A.B.C$	Reduction
as:	$0 + A.B.C = A.B.C$	Identity
thus:	ABC	Result

Then the Boolean expression of $AB(BC+AC)$ is reduced to "ABC".

K-Map Method

In previous chapters, we have simplified the Boolean functions using Boolean postulates and theorems. It is a time consuming process and we have to re-write the simplified expressions after each step.

To overcome this difficulty, **Karnaugh** introduced a method for simplification of Boolean functions in an easy way. This method is known as Karnaugh map method or K-map method. It is a graphical method, which consists of 2^n cells for 'n' variables. The adjacent cells are differed only in single bit position.

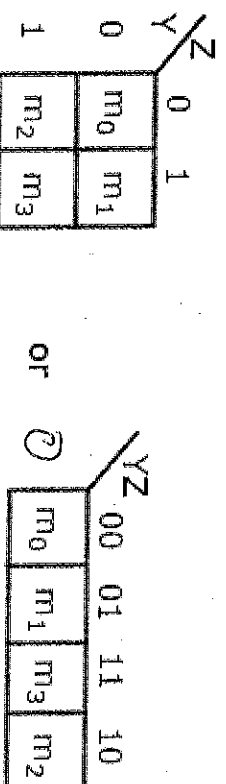
K-Maps for 2 to 5 Variables

K-Map method is most suitable for minimizing Boolean functions of 2 variables to 5 variables. Now, let us discuss about the K-Maps for 2 to 5

variables one by one.

2 Variable K-Map

The number of cells in 2 variable K-map is four, since the number of variables is two. The following figure shows 2 variable K-Map.



- There is only one possibility of grouping 4 adjacent min terms.

The possible combinations of grouping 2 adjacent min terms are $\{(m_0, m_1), (m_2, m_3), (m_0, m_2) \text{ and } (m_1, m_3)\}$.

3 Variable K-Map

The number of cells in 3 variable K-map is eight, since the number of variables is three. The following figure shows 3 variable K-Map.

		YZ			
		00	01	11	10
X	0	m_0	m_1	m_3	m_2
	1	m_4	m_5	m_7	m_6

- There is only one possibility of grouping 8 adjacent min terms.
- The possible combinations of grouping 4 adjacent min terms are $\{(m_0, m_1, m_3, m_2), (m_4, m_5, m_7, m_6), (m_0, m_1, m_4, m_5), (m_1, m_3, m_5, m_7), (m_3, m_2, m_7, m_6) \text{ and } (m_2, m_0, m_6, m_4)\}$.
- The possible combinations of grouping 2 adjacent min terms are $\{(m_0, m_1), (m_1, m_3), (m_3, m_2), (m_2, m_0), (m_4, m_5), (m_5, m_7), (m_7, m_6), (m_6, m_4), (m_0, m_4), (m_1, m_5), (m_3, m_7) \text{ and } (m_2, m_6)\}$.
- If $x=0$, then 3 variable K-map becomes 2 variable K-map.

4 Variable K-Map

The number of cells in 4 variable K-map is sixteen, since the number of variables is four. The following figure shows 4 variable K-Map.

WX		YZ			
		00	01	11	10
00	00	m_0	m_1	m_3	m_2
	01	m_4	m_5	m_7	m_6
	11	m_{12}	m_{13}	m_{15}	m_{14}
	10	m_8	m_9	m_{11}	m_{10}

- There is only one possibility of grouping 16 adjacent min terms.
- Let R_1, R_2, R_3 and R_4 represents the min terms of first row, second row, third row and fourth row respectively. Similarly, C_1, C_2, C_3 and C_4 represents the min terms of first column, second column, third column and fourth column respectively. The possible combinations of grouping 8 adjacent min terms are $\{(R_1, R_2), (R_2, R_3), (R_3, R_4), (R_4, R_1), (C_1, C_2), (C_2, C_3), (C_3, C_4), (C_4, C_1)\}$.
- If $w=0$, then 4 variable K-map becomes 3 variable K-map.

Minimization of Boolean Functions using K-Maps

If we consider the combination of inputs for which the Boolean function is '1', then we will get the Boolean function, which is in **standard sum of products** form after simplifying the K-map.

Similarly, if we consider the combination of inputs for which the Boolean function is '0', then we will get the Boolean function, which is in **standard product of sums** form after simplifying the K-map.

Follow these **rules for simplifying K-maps** in order to get standard sum of products form.

- Select the respective K-map based on the number of variables present in the Boolean function.
- If the Boolean function is given as sum of min terms form, then place the ones at respective min term cells in the K-map. If the Boolean function is given as sum of products form, then place the ones in all possible cells of Kmap for which the given product terms are valid.
- Check for the possibilities of grouping maximum number of adjacent ones. It should be powers of two. Start from highest power of two and upto least power of two. Highest power is equal to the number of variables considered in K-map and least power is zero.
- Each grouping will give either a literal or one product term. It is known as **prime implicant**. The prime implicant is said to be **essential prime implicant**, if atleast single '1' is not covered with any other groupings but only that grouping covers.
- Note down all the prime implicants and essential prime implicants. The simplified Boolean function contains all essential prime implicants and only the required prime implicants.

Note 1 – If outputs are not defined for some combination of inputs, then those output values will be represented with **don't care symbol 'x'**. That means, we can consider them as either '0' or '1'.

Note 2 – If don't care terms also present, then place don't cares 'x' in the respective cells of K-map. Consider only the don't cares 'x' that are helpful for grouping maximum number of adjacent ones. In those cases, treat the don't care value as '1'.

Example

Let us **simplify** the following Boolean function, $F(WXYZ) = WX'Y' + WY' + W'YZ'$ using K-map.

The given Boolean function is in sum of products form. It is having 4 variables W, X, Y & Z. So, we require **4 variable K-map**. The **4 variable K-map** with ones corresponding to the given product terms is shown in the following figure.

		YZ			
		00	01	11	10
WX	00	1			1
	01	1			
	11			1	1
	10	1	1	1	1

Here, 1s are placed in the following cells of K-map.

- The cells, which are common to the intersection of Row 4 and columns 1 & 2 are corresponding to the product term, $WX'Y'$.

- The cells, which are common to the intersection of Rows 3 & 4 and columns 3 & 4 are corresponding to the product term, WY .
- The cells, which are common to the intersection of Rows 1 & 2 and column 4 are corresponding to the product term, $W'YZ'$.

There are no possibilities of grouping either 16 adjacent ones or 8 adjacent ones. There are three possibilities of grouping 4 adjacent ones. After these three groupings, there is no single one left as ungrouped. So, we no need to check for grouping of 2 adjacent ones. The **4 variable K-map** with these three **groupings** is shown in the following figure.

Here, we got three prime implicants WX' , WY & YZ' . All these prime implicants are **essential** because of following reasons.

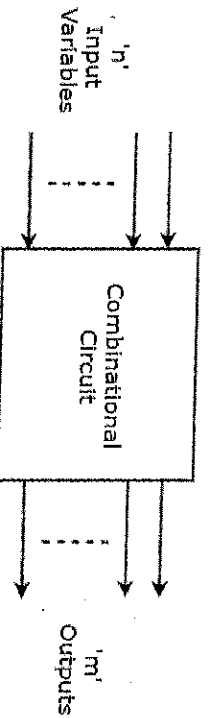
- Two ones (m_8 & m_9) of fourth row grouping are not covered by any other groupings. Only fourth row grouping covers those two ones.
- Single one (m_{15}) of square shape grouping is not covered by any other groupings. Only the square shape grouping covers that one.
- Two ones (m_2 & m_6) of fourth column grouping are not covered by any other groupings. Only fourth column grouping covers those two ones.

Therefore, the **simplified Boolean function** is

$$f = WX' + WY + YZ'$$

Digital Combinational Circuits

Combinational circuits consist of Logic gates. These circuits operate with binary values. The output S of combinational circuit depends on the combination of present inputs. The following figure shows the **block diagram** of combinational circuit.



This combinational circuit has ' n ' input variables and ' m ' outputs. Each combination of input variables will affect the output S .

Design procedure of Combinational circuits

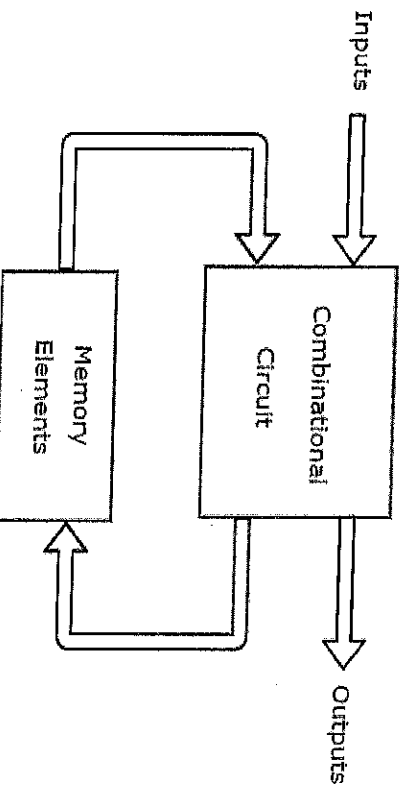
- Find the required number of input variables and outputs from given specifications.
-

Formulate the **Truth table**. If there are 'n' input variables, then there will be 2^n possible combinations. For each combination of input, find the output values.

- Find the **Boolean expressions** for each output. If necessary, simplify those expressions.
- Implement the above Boolean expressions corresponding to each output by using **Logic gates**.

Digital Sequential Circuits

We discussed various combinational circuits in earlier chapters. All these circuits have a set of outputs, which depends only on the combination of present inputs. The following figure shows the **block diagram** of sequential circuit.



This sequential circuit contains a set of inputs and outputs. The outputs of sequential circuit depend not only on the combination of present inputs but also on the previous outputs. Previous output is nothing but the **present state**. Therefore, sequential circuits contain combinational circuits along with memory storage elements. Some sequential circuits may not contain combinational circuits, but only memory elements.

Following table shows the **differences** between combinational circuits and sequential circuits.

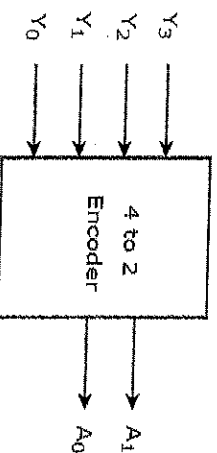
Combinational Circuits	Sequential Circuits
Outputs depend only on present inputs.	Outputs depend on both present inputs and present state.
Feedback path is not present.	Feedback path is present.
Memory elements are not required.	Memory elements are required.
Clock signal is not required.	Clock signal is required.
Easy to design.	Difficult to design.

Encoders

An **Encoder** is a combinational circuit that performs the reverse operation of Decoder. It has maximum of 2^n input lines and 'n' output lines. It will produce a binary code equivalent to the input, which is active High. Therefore, the encoder encodes 2^n input lines with 'n' bits. It is optional to represent the enable signal in encoders.

4 to 2 Encoder

Let 4 to 2 Encoder has four inputs Y_3, Y_2, Y_1 & Y_0 and two outputs A_1 & A_0 . The **block diagram** of 4 to 2 Encoder is shown in the following figure.



At any time, only one of these 4 inputs can be '1' in order to get the respective binary code at the output. The **Truth table** of 4 to 2 encoder is shown below.

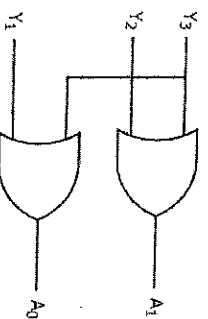
Inputs				Outputs	
Y_3	Y_2	Y_1	Y_0	A_1	A_0
0	0	0	1	0	0
0	0	1	0	0	1
0	1	0	0	1	0
1	0	0	0	1	1

From Truth table, we can write the **Boolean functions** for each output as

$$A_1 = Y_3 + Y_2$$

$$A_0 = Y_3 + Y_1$$

We can implement the above two Boolean functions by using two input OR gates. The **circuit diagram** of 4 to 2 encoder is shown in the following figure.



The above circuit diagram contains two OR gates. These OR gates encode the four inputs with two bits

Decoders

Decoder is a combinational circuit that has 'n' input lines and maximum of 2^n output lines. One of these outputs will be active High based on the combination of inputs present, when the decoder is enabled. That means decoder detects a particular code. The outputs of the decoder are nothing but the **min terms** of 'n' input variables lines, when it is enabled.

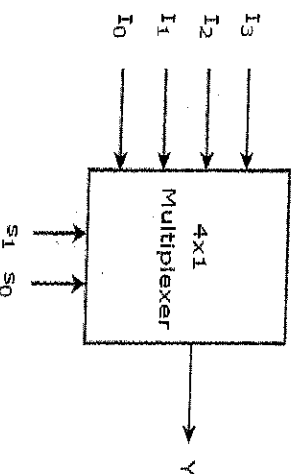
Multiplexers

Multiplexer is a combinational circuit that has maximum of 2^n data inputs, 'n' selection lines and single output line. One of these data inputs will be connected to the output based on the values of selection lines.

Since there are 'n' selection lines, there will be 2^n possible combinations of zeros and ones. So, each combination will select only one data input. Multiplexer is also called as **Mux**.

4x1 Multiplexer

4x1 Multiplexer has four data inputs I_3, I_2, I_1 & I_0 , two selection lines s_1 & s_0 and one output Y. The **block diagram** of 4x1 Multiplexer is shown in the following figure.



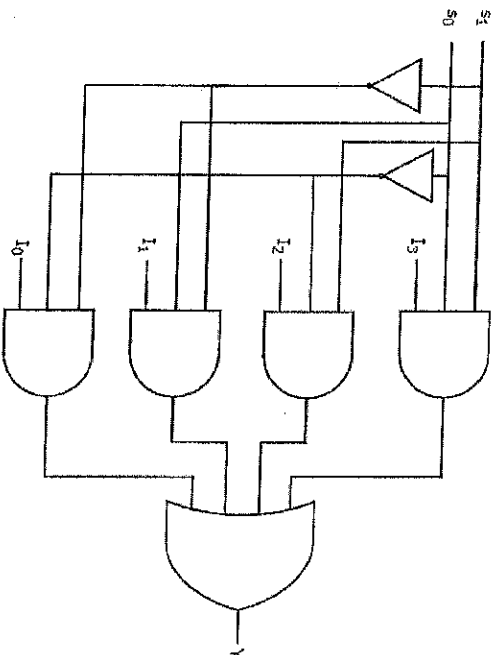
One of these 4 inputs will be connected to the output based on the combination of inputs present at these two selection lines. **Truth table** of 4x1 Multiplexer is shown below.

Selection Lines		Output	
s_1	s_0	Y	
0	0	I_0	
0	1	I_1	
1	0	I_2	
1	1	I_3	

From Truth table, we can directly write the **Boolean function** for output, Y as

$$Y = S_1'S_0'I_0 + S_1'S_0I_1 + S_1S_0'I_2 + S_1S_0I_3$$

We can implement this Boolean function using Inverters, AND gates & OR gate. The **circuit diagram** of 4x1 multiplexer is shown in the following figure.



We can easily understand the operation of the above circuit. Similarly, you can implement 8x1 Multiplexer and 16x1 multiplexer by following the same procedure.

Implementation of Higher-order Multiplexers.

Now, let us implement the following two higher-order Multiplexers using lower-order Multiplexers.

- 8x1 Multiplexer
- 16x1 Multiplexer

8x1 Multiplexer

In this section, let us implement 8x1 Multiplexer using 4x1 Multiplexers and 2x1 Multiplexer. We know that 4x1 Multiplexer has 4 data inputs, 2 selection lines and one output. Whereas, 8x1 Multiplexer has 8 data inputs, 3 selection lines and one output.

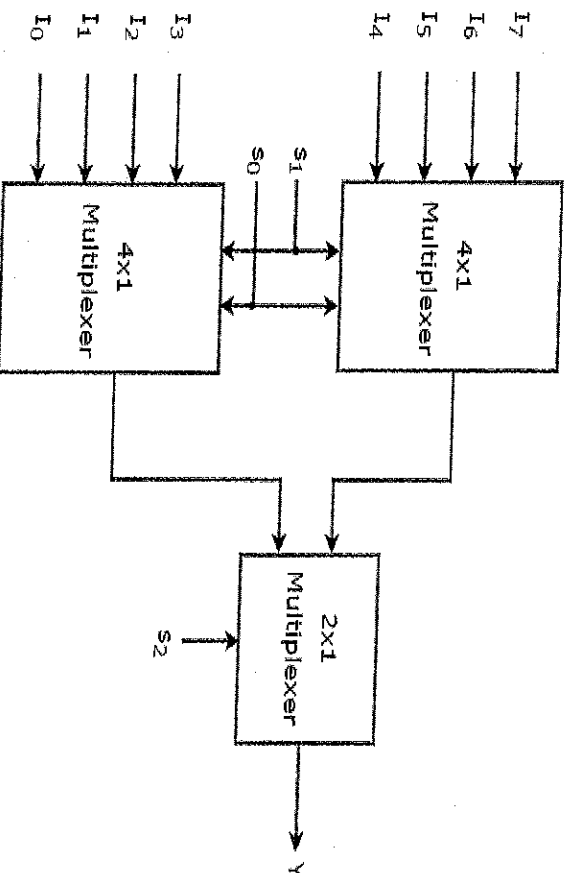
So, we require two **4x1 Multiplexers** in first stage in order to get the 8 data inputs. Since, each 4x1 Multiplexer produces one output, we require a **2x1 Multiplexer** in second stage by considering the outputs of first stage as inputs and to produce the final output.

Let the 8x1 Multiplexer has eight data inputs I_7 to I_0 , three selection lines S_2 , S_1 & S_0 and one output Y . The **Truth table** of 8x1 Multiplexer is shown below.

Selection Inputs			Output
S_2	S_1	S_0	Y
0	0	0	I_0
0	0	1	I_1
0	1	0	I_2
0	1	1	I_3
1	0	0	I_4
1	0	1	I_5
1	1	0	I_6
1	1	1	I_7

1	0	1	15
1	1	0	16
1	1	1	17

We can implement 8x1 Multiplexer using lower order Multiplexers easily by considering the above Truth table. The **block diagram** of 8x1 Multiplexer is shown in the following figure.



The same **selection lines**, s_1 & s_0 are applied to both 4x1 Multiplexers. The data inputs of upper 4x1 Multiplexer are I_7 to I_4 and the data inputs of lower 4x1 Multiplexer are I_3 to I_0 . Therefore, each 4x1 Multiplexer produces an output based on the values of selection lines, s_1 & s_0 .

The outputs of first stage 4x1 Multiplexers are applied as inputs of 2x1 Multiplexer that is present in second stage. The other **selection line**, s_2 is applied to 2x1 Multiplexer.

- If s_2 is zero, then the output of 2x1 Multiplexer will be one of the 4 inputs I_3 to I_0 based on the values of selection lines s_1 & s_0 .
- If s_2 is one, then the output of 2x1 Multiplexer will be one of the 4 inputs I_7 to I_4 based on the values of selection lines s_1 & s_0 .

Therefore, the overall combination of two 4x1 Multiplexers and one 2x1 Multiplexer performs as one 8x1 Multiplexer.

16x1 Multiplexer

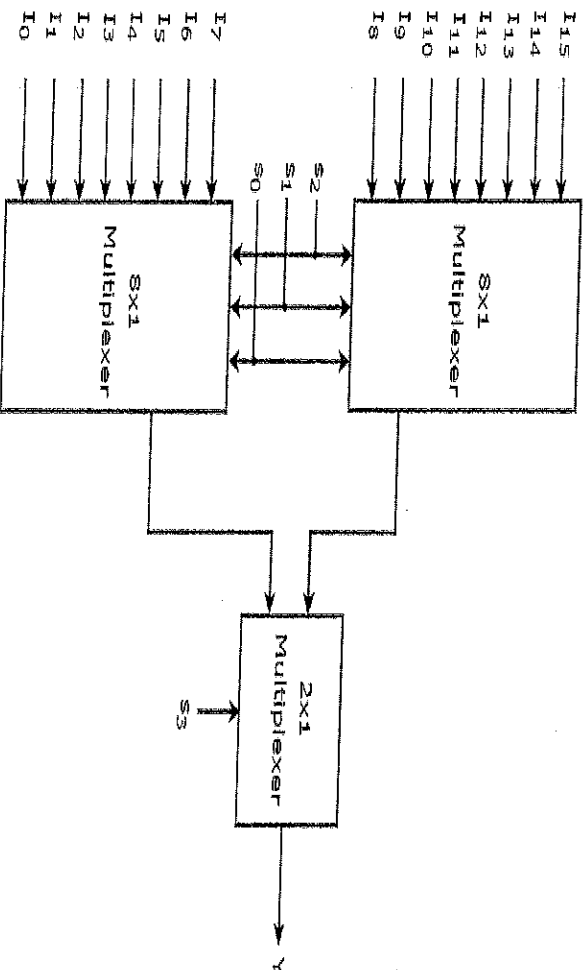
In this section, let us implement 16x1 Multiplexer using 8x1 Multiplexers and 2x1 Multiplexer. We know that 8x1 Multiplexer has 8 data inputs, 3 selection lines and one output. Whereas, 16x1 Multiplexer has 16 data inputs, 4 selection lines and one output.

So, we require two **8x1 Multiplexers** in first stage in order to get the 16 data inputs. Since, each 8x1 Multiplexer produces one output, we require a 2x1 Multiplexer in second stage by considering the outputs of first stage as inputs and to produce the final output.

Let the 16x1 Multiplexer has sixteen data inputs I_{15} to I_0 , four selection lines S_3 to S_0 and one output Y . The **Truth table** of 16x1 Multiplexer is shown below.

Selection Inputs				Output
S_3	S_2	S_1	S_0	Y
0	0	0	0	I_0
0	0	0	1	I_1
0	0	1	0	I_2
0	0	1	1	I_3
0	1	0	0	I_4
0	1	0	1	I_5
0	1	1	0	I_6
0	1	1	1	I_7
1	0	0	0	I_8
1	0	0	1	I_9
1	0	1	0	I_{10}
1	0	1	1	I_{11}
1	1	0	0	I_{12}
1	1	0	1	I_{13}
1	1	1	0	I_{14}
1	1	1	1	I_{15}

We can implement 16x1 Multiplexer using lower order Multiplexers easily by considering the above Truth table. The **block diagram** of 16x1 Multiplexer is shown in the following figure.



The same **selection lines**, s_2 , s_1 & s_0 are applied to both 8x1 Multiplexers. The data inputs of upper 8x1 Multiplexer are I_{15} to I_8 and the data inputs of lower 8x1 Multiplexer are I_7 to I_0 . Therefore, each 8x1 Multiplexer produces an output based on the values of selection lines, s_2 , s_1 & s_0 .

The outputs of first stage 8x1 Multiplexers are applied as inputs of 2x1 Multiplexer that is present in second stage. The other **selection line**, s_3 is applied to 2x1 Multiplexer.

- If s_3 is zero, then the output of 2x1 Multiplexer will be one of the 8 inputs I_{15} to I_0 based on the values of selection lines s_2 , s_1 & s_0 .
- If s_3 is one, then the output of 2x1 Multiplexer will be one of the 8 inputs I_{15} to I_0 based on the values of selection lines s_2 , s_1 & s_0 .

Therefore, the overall combination of two 8x1 Multiplexers and one 2x1 Multiplexer performs as one 16x1 Multiplexer.

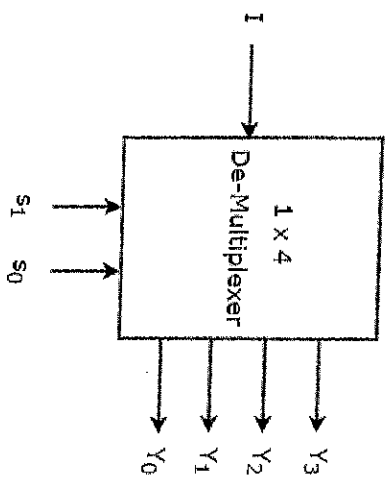
De-Multiplexers

De-Multiplexer is a combinational circuit that performs the reverse operation of Multiplexer. It has single input, 'n' selection lines and maximum of 2^n outputs. The input will be connected to one of these outputs based on the values of selection lines.

Since there are 'n' selection lines, there will be 2^n possible combinations of zeros and ones. So, each combination can select only one output. De-Multiplexer is also called as **De-Mux**.

1x4 De-Multiplexer

1x4 De-Multiplexer has one input I , two selection lines, s_1 & s_0 and four outputs Y_3 , Y_2 , Y_1 & Y_0 . The **block diagram** of 1x4 De-Multiplexer is shown in the following figure.



The single input 'I' will be connected to one of the four outputs, Y_3 to Y_0 based on the values of selection lines s_1 & s_0 . The **Truth table** of 1x4 De-Multiplexer is shown below.

Selection Inputs		Outputs			
s_1	s_0	Y_3	Y_2	Y_1	Y_0
0	0	0	0	0	1
0	1	0	0	1	0
1	0	0	1	0	0
1	1	1	0	0	0

From the above Truth table, we can directly write the **Boolean functions** for each output as

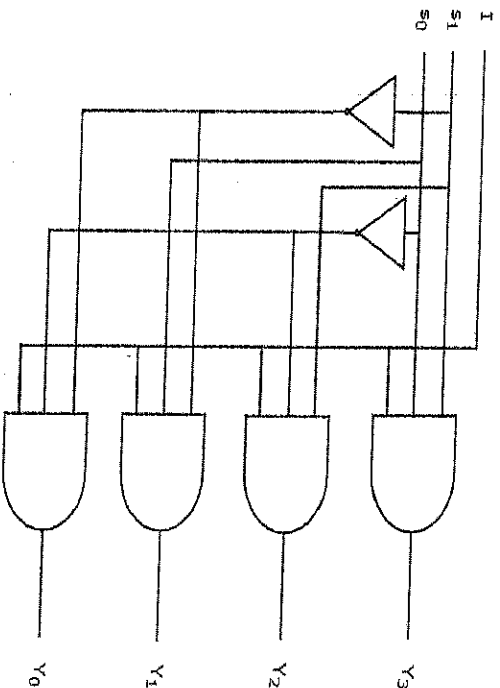
$$Y_3 = s_1 s_0$$

$$Y_2 = s_1 s_0'$$

$$Y_1 = s_1' s_0$$

$$Y_0 = s_1' s_0'$$

We can implement these Boolean functions using Inverters & 3-input AND gates. The **circuit diagram** of 1x4 De-Multiplexer is shown in the following figure.



We can easily understand the operation of the above circuit. Similarly, you can implement 1x8 De-Multiplexer and 1x16 De-Multiplexer by following the same procedure.

Implementation of Higher-order De-Multiplexers

Now, let us implement the following two higher-order De-Multiplexers using lower-order De-Multiplexers.

- 1x8 De-Multiplexer
- 1x16 De-Multiplexer

1x8 De-Multiplexer

In this section, let us implement 1x8 De-Multiplexer using 1x4 De-Multiplexers and 1x2 De-Multiplexer. We know that 1x4 De-Multiplexer has single input, two selection lines and four outputs. Whereas, 1x8 De-Multiplexer has single input, three selection lines and eight outputs.

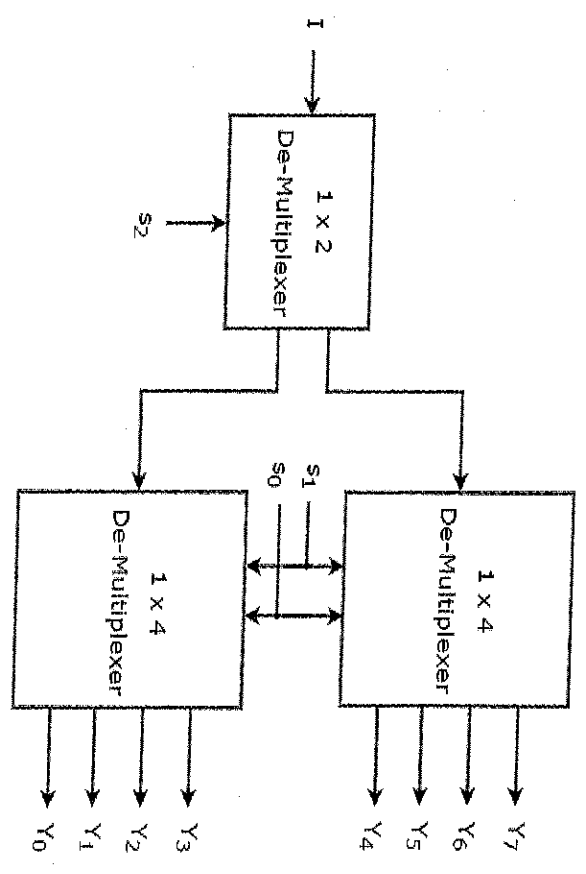
So, we require two **1x4 De-Multiplexers** in second stage in order to get the final eight outputs. Since, the number of inputs in second stage is two, we require **1x2 De-Multiplexer** in first stage so that the outputs of first stage will be the inputs of second stage. Input of this 1x2 De-Multiplexer will be the overall input of 1x8 De-Multiplexer.

Let the 1x8 De-Multiplexer has one input I, three selection lines s_2 , s_1 & s_0 and outputs Y_7 to Y_0 . The **Truth table** of 1x8 De-Multiplexer is shown below.

Selection Inputs				Outputs							
s_2	s_1	s_0	Y_7	Y_6	Y_5	Y_4	Y_3	Y_2	Y_1	Y_0	
0	0	0	0	0	0	0	0	0	0	1	
0	0	1	0	0	0	0	0	0	1	0	
0	1	0	0	0	0	0	0	1	0	0	

0	1	1	0	0	0	0	1	0	0
1	0	0	0	0	0	1	0	0	0
1	0	1	0	0	1	0	0	0	0
1	1	0	0	1	0	0	0	0	0
1	1	1	1	0	0	0	0	0	0

We can implement 1x8 De-Multiplexer using lower order Multiplexers easily by considering the above Truth table. The **block diagram** of 1x8 De-Multiplexer is shown in the following figure.



The common **selection lines**, s_1 & s_0 are applied to both 1x4 De-Multiplexers. The outputs of upper 1x4 De-Multiplexer are Y_7 to Y_4 and the outputs of lower 1x4 De-Multiplexer are Y_3 to Y_0 .

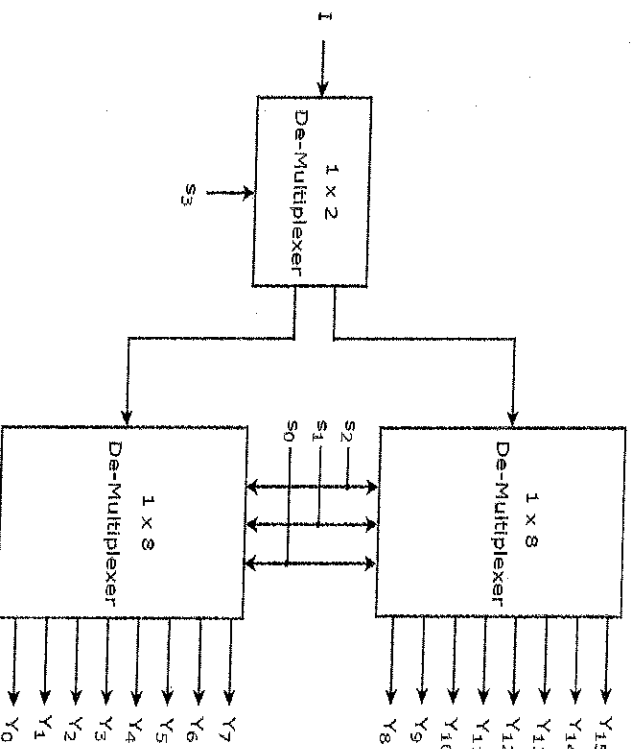
The other **selection line**, s_2 is applied to 1x2 De-Multiplexer. If s_2 is zero, then one of the four outputs of lower 1x4 De-Multiplexer will be equal to input, I based on the values of selection lines s_1 & s_0 . Similarly, if s_2 is one, then one of the four outputs of upper 1x4 De-Multiplexer will be equal to input, I based on the values of selection lines s_1 & s_0 .

1x16 De-Multiplexer

In this section, let us implement 1x16 De-Multiplexer using 1x8 De-Multiplexers and 1x2 De-Multiplexer. We know that 1x8 De-Multiplexer has single input, three selection lines and eight outputs. Whereas, 1x16 De-Multiplexer has single input, four selection lines and sixteen outputs.

So, we require two **1x8 De-Multiplexers** in second stage in order to get the final sixteen outputs. Since, the number of inputs in second stage is two, we require **1x2 De-Multiplexer** in first stage so that the outputs of first stage will be the inputs of second stage. Input of this 1x2 De-Multiplexer will be the overall input of 1x16 De-Multiplexer.

Let the 1x16 De-Multiplexer has one input I , four selection lines s_3, s_2, s_1 & s_0 and outputs Y_{15} to Y_0 . The **block diagram** of 1x16 De-Multiplexer using lower order Multiplexers is shown in the following figure.



The common **selection lines** s_2, s_1 & s_0 are applied to both 1x8 De-Multiplexers. The outputs of upper 1x8 De-Multiplexer are Y_{15} to Y_8 and the outputs of lower 1x8 De-Multiplexer are Y_7 to Y_0 .

The other **selection line**, s_3 is applied to 1x2 De-Multiplexer. If s_3 is zero, then one of the eight outputs of lower 1x8 De-Multiplexer will be equal to input, I based on the values of selection lines s_2, s_1 & s_0 . Similarly, if s_3 is one, then one of the 8 outputs of upper 1x8 De-Multiplexer will be equal to input, I based on the values of selection lines s_2, s_1 & s_0 .